

Enderton's Elements of Set Theory

Malcolm

Started 1st May 2026

Contents

1	Axioms and Operations	2
1.1	First Axioms	2
1.1.1	Definitions	4
1.1.2	Subset axioms	6
1.1.3	Russell's Paradox	7
1.1.4	Improved Union Axiom	8
1.1.5	Redundance of the preliminary union axiom	9
1.1.6	Intersection	10
1.2	Set algebra	11
2	Relations and Functions	19
2.1	Ordered Pairs	19
2.1.1	Cartesian product	20
2.2	Relations	21
2.2.1	n -ary Relations	22
2.3	Functions	22
2.3.1	More definitions	24

Chapter 1

Axioms and Operations

1.1 First Axioms

Extensionality axiom

If two sets have the exact same members, then they are equal:

$$\forall A \forall B [\forall x (x \in A \leftrightarrow x \in B) \rightarrow A = B]$$

(The nested implication is not an equivalence because the other direction is already true. Declaring it would be redundant.)

Empty set axiom

There is a set having no members:

$$\exists B \forall x (x \notin B)$$

Pairing axiom

For any sets u and v , there is a set having as members just u and v :

$$\forall u \forall v \exists B \forall x (x \in B \leftrightarrow x = u \text{ or } x = v)$$

Union axiom, Preliminary form

For any sets a and b , there is a set whose members are those sets belonging either to a or to b (or both):

$$\forall a \forall b \exists B \forall x (x \in B \leftrightarrow x \in a \text{ or } x \in b)$$

(next page)

Power set axiom

For any set a , there is a set whose members are exactly the subsets of a :

$$\forall a \exists B \forall x (x \in B \leftrightarrow x \subseteq a)$$

We can rewrite $x \subseteq a$ in terms of the definition of $\subseteq$:

$$\forall t (t \in x \rightarrow t \in a)$$

This list will be further expanded later to include

- Subset axioms
- Replacement axioms
- Infinity axiom
- Regularity axiom
- Choice axiom

The union axiom will be also be restated in a stronger form.

1.1.1 Definitions

Definition 1.1. $\emptyset$ is the set having no members.

This definition bestows the name “ $\emptyset$ ” on a certain set. When we write down such a definition we must be sure of two things: that there exists such a set and that there cannot be more than one set having no members. The empty set axiom provides the first fact and extensionality provides the second. Without both facts the symbol “ $\emptyset$ ” would not be well defined.

Definition 1.2.

- For any sets u and v , the **pair set** $\{u, v\}$ is the set whose members are u and v .
- For any sets a and b , the **union** $a \cup b$ is the set whose members are those sets belonging either to a or to b (or both).
- For any set a , the **power set** $\mathcal{P}a$ is the set whose members are exactly the subsets of a .

The existence and uniqueness proofs guaranteeing all of these definitions can be proved using the empty set axiom, the pairing axiom, the union axiom, and the power set axiom respectively, each in combination with the extensionality axiom.

We can use the pairing and union together to form other finite sets. Given any x we can denote the pair set $\{x, x\}$ as the *singleton* $\{x\}$ (since the pair exists and is unique). For any given x_1, x_2, x_3 we can define

$$\{x_1, x_2, x_3\} = \{x_1, x_2\} \cup \{x_3\}$$

(since the union exists and is unique for any two particular sets). Similarly we can define $\{x_1, x_2, x_3, x_4\}$ and so forth.
(next page)

Notation

Our existence axioms have been of the form “there exists a set B whose members are those sets x satisfying the condition $--$ ”

$$\exists B \forall x (x \in B \leftrightarrow --)$$

Where if some other sets $t_1, \dots, t_k$ are involved in the condition, then the full version becomes

$$\forall t_1 \dots \forall t_k \exists B \forall x (x \in B \leftrightarrow --)$$

With the blank filled in by some expression involving $t_1, \dots, t_k$ and x . The empty set axiom can be written as

$$\exists B \forall x (x \in B \leftrightarrow x \neq x)$$

Now let us be more general and consider any statement of the form

$$\forall t_1 \dots \forall t_k \exists B \forall x (x \in B \leftrightarrow --)$$

If the statement were true, then the set B , by the statement itself, as well as by equivalence, can be named by use of the abstraction notation:

$$B = \{x \mid --\}$$

*My interpretation was that showing the existence and uniqueness of B amounts to showing:

$$\forall t_1 \dots \forall t_k [\exists B (\forall x (x \in B \leftrightarrow --)) \wedge \forall B' (\forall x (x \in B' \leftrightarrow --) \rightarrow B' = B)]$$

The sets defined earlier can similarly be named in this notation:

$$\begin{aligned}\emptyset &= \{x \mid x \neq x\} \\ \{u, v\} &= \{x \mid x = u \text{ or } x = v\} \\ a \cup b &= \{x \mid x \in a \text{ or } x \in b\} \\ \mathcal{P}a &= \{x \mid x \subseteq a\}\end{aligned}$$

Note that it is not the case that all statements of the general form are true. For instance

$$\exists B \forall x (x \in B \leftrightarrow x = x)$$

is false as it asserts the existence of a set B to which every set belongs.

1.1.2 Subset axioms

Subset axioms

For each formula $--$ not containing B , the following is an axiom:

$$\forall t_1 \dots \forall t_k \forall c \exists B \forall x (x \in B \leftrightarrow x \in c \wedge --)$$

Given an existing set c , this axiom asserts the existence of a set whose members are exactly those sets in c such that $--$.

See that such a set must be the subset of an existing set c (thus the name). The set can be named by use of a variation on the abstraction notation:

$$B = \{x \in c \mid --\}$$

Intersection

One of the subset axioms is

$$\forall a \forall c \exists B \forall x (x \in B \leftrightarrow x \in c \wedge x \in a)$$

The axiom asserts the existence of the set we define to be the *intersection* $c \cap a$ of c and a .

Relative complement

We also have as a subset axiom

$$\forall A \forall B \exists S \forall x (x \in S \leftrightarrow x \in A \wedge x \notin B)$$

This set S is the *relative complement* of B in A , denoted $A - B$.

1.1.3 Russell's Paradox

Theorem 1.3. *There is no set to which every set belongs.*

Proof. Suppose, for contradiction, that there exists a set A to which every set belongs. By the subset axiom we can assert

$$\forall A \exists B \forall x (x \in B \leftrightarrow x \in A \wedge x \notin x)$$

That is, the existence of

$$B = \{x \in A \mid x \notin x\}$$

By construction of B we have

$$\forall x (x \in B \leftrightarrow x \in A \wedge x \notin x)$$

and

$$B \in B \leftrightarrow B \in A \wedge B \notin B$$

We know that $B \in A$. This can be used to show

$$B \in B \leftrightarrow B \notin B \quad \square$$

The idea here is that if B were not a member of itself, then by definition B should be in B . But if B were a member of itself, then by definition it should not be a member of itself.

1.1.4 Improved Union Axiom

The previously described union operation allowed us to consider the union of two sets, and by repeating the operation, the union of three sets and so on. Suppose however we want the union of infinitely many sets:

$$A = \{b_0, b_1, b_2, \dots\}$$

For this we need a more general union operation:

$$\begin{aligned} \bigcup A &= \bigcup_i b_i \\ &= \{x \mid x \text{ belongs to some member } b_i \text{ of } A\} \end{aligned}$$

This leads us to define the union of any set A as

$$\begin{aligned} \bigcup A &= \{x \mid x \text{ belongs to some member of } A\} \\ &= \{x \mid (\exists b \in A)x \in b\} \end{aligned}$$

We need an improved union axiom to include cases where A were infinite, overcoming the limitation of defining unions strictly “one by one”.

Union axiom

For any set A , there exists a set B whose elements are exactly the members of the members of A :

$$\forall A \exists B \forall x [x \in B \leftrightarrow (\exists b \in A)x \in b]$$

For any A we can define $\bigcup A$ as

$$\bigcup A = \{x \mid (\exists b \in A)x \in b\}$$

See that for any two sets a and b we have

$$\begin{aligned} \bigcup \{a, b\} &= \{x \mid (\exists c \in \{a, b\})x \in c\} \\ &= \{x \mid x \in a \vee x \in b\} \\ &= a \cup b \end{aligned}$$

(one can check that the $\{x \mid x \in a \vee x \in b\}$ is the equivalent notation for the binary union.) This shows that our preliminary form of the union axiom can be discarded in favor of the new form—the set $a \cup b$ produced by the preliminary form can also be obtained from the pairing and revised form of the union axiom.

1.1.5 Redundance of the preliminary union axiom

Theorem 1.4. *Given the pairing axiom*

$$\forall u \forall v \exists B \forall x (x \in B \leftrightarrow x = u \text{ or } x = v)$$

and the union axiom

$$\forall A \exists B \forall x [x \in B \leftrightarrow (\exists b \in A) x \in b]$$

we can show

$$\forall a \forall b \exists B \forall x (x \in B \leftrightarrow x \in a \text{ or } x \in b)$$

which is the preliminary union axiom determined earlier.

Proof. Let a and b be arbitrary sets. The pairing axiom asserts the existence of a set A where

$$\forall x (x \in A \leftrightarrow x = a \text{ or } x = b)$$

Now that we know set A exists, the union axiom asserts the existence of a set B where

$$\forall x [x \in B \leftrightarrow (\exists b \in A) x \in b]$$

Let x be arbitrary.

($\rightarrow$) First suppose $x \in B$. We can then declare some $y \in A$ such that $x \in y$. Since $y \in A$ we have $y = a \vee y = b$, and therefore $x \in a \vee x \in b$.

($\leftarrow$) Now suppose that $x \in a \vee x \in b$. In the case where $x \in a$, we know that $x \in a \in A$, so $x \in B$. The case where $x \in b$ is similarly proven. $\square$

1.1.6 Intersection

Theorem 1.5. *For any nonempty set A , there exists a unique set B such that for any x ,*

$$x \in B \leftrightarrow x \text{ belongs to every member of } A$$

Proof. We first prove existence. We want to show

$$\exists B(\forall x(x \in B \leftrightarrow \forall a \in A(x \in a)))$$

Since A is nonempty we can let c be some member of A . By the subset axiom we can assert

$$\exists B(x \in B \leftrightarrow x \in c \wedge \forall a \in A \setminus \{c\}(x \in a))$$

So we can declare some B such that the above is true. Let x be arbitrary.

($\rightarrow$) First suppose that $x \in B$, then let $a \in A$. We have two cases; first suppose $a = c$, then we know $x \in c = a$. Now suppose that $x \neq c$; then since $x \in A$ we have $x \in A \setminus \{c\}$ and therefore $x \in a$.

($\leftarrow$) Now suppose that $\forall a \in A(x \in a)$. Since $c \in A$, we must have $x \in c$. Let a be some element of $A \setminus \{c\}$; clearly $a \in A$, so $x \in a$. We have now shown $x \in c \wedge \forall a \in A \setminus \{c\}(x \in a)$, so $x \in B$. Existence is proven.

Uniqueness, as always, follows from extensionality. We consider some arbitrary B' and assume that $\forall x(x \in B' \leftrightarrow \forall a \in A(x \in a))$, then show that $B' = B$ using extensionality. $\square$

In contrast to the union operation, no special axiom is needed to justify the intersection operation. This theorem permits defining a unique intersection set for every nonempty set. We proved that for any nonempty A ,

$$\exists B(\forall x(x \in B \leftrightarrow \forall a \in A(x \in a)))$$

and that this set was unique for each A . Using the earlier notation we name this set

$$\bigcap A = \{x \mid x \text{ belongs to every member of } A\}$$

An edge case should be considered: our theorem proves existence of the intersection $\bigcap A$ for all nonempty A ; what happens in the case where $A = \emptyset$? In other words, is it the case that

$$\exists B(\forall x(x \in B \leftrightarrow \forall a \in \emptyset(x \in a)))$$

We can show that this implies (by vacuous truth)

$$\exists B(\forall x(x \in B))$$

which would contradict russells paradox.

1.2 Set algebra

The union operation for any two sets exists by the pairing, union, and extensionality axioms.

$$A \cup B = \{x \mid x \in A \vee x \in B\}$$

The intersection operation for any two sets exists by the subset and extensionality axioms.

$$A \cap B = \{x \mid x \in A \wedge x \in B\}$$

Also by the subset and extensionality axioms, we have the *relative complement* $A - B$ of B in A .

$$A - B = \{x \in A \mid x \notin B\}$$

also sometimes denoted as $A \setminus B$.

Note that we cannot form (as a set) the “absolute complement” of B , $\{x \mid x \neq B\}$. In this case the union with B , which must exist axiomatically, would be a set of all sets, which would contradict russell’s paradox.

The study of the operations of union ($\cup$), intersection ($\cap$), and relative complementation ($-$), together with the inclusion relation ($\subseteq$), is called the *algebra of sets*. The following identities, which hold for any sets, are some elementary facts of the algebra of sets:

Commutative laws

$$A \cup B = B \cup A \quad \text{and} \quad A \cap B = B \cap A$$

Associative laws

$$A \cup (B \cup C) = (A \cup B) \cup C$$

$$A \cap (B \cap C) = (A \cap B) \cap C$$

Proofs of these follow directly from the commutativity and associativity of the logical OR and AND.

(next page)

Distributive laws

$$\begin{aligned} A \cap (B \cup C) &= (A \cap B) \cup (A \cap C) \\ A \cup (B \cap C) &= (A \cup B) \cap (A \cup C) \end{aligned}$$

Proof. First we show $A \cap (B \cup C) = (A \cap B) \cup (A \cap C)$. Let x be arbitrary.

($\rightarrow$) Suppose $x \in A \cap (B \cup C)$. Then $x \in A$ and $x \in B \cup C$. In the case where $x \in B$, then $x \in A \cap B$. In the case where $x \in C$, then $x \in A \cap C$. So we have $x \in A \cap B \vee x \in A \cap C$ and $x \in (A \cap B) \cup (A \cap C)$.

($\leftarrow$) Suppose $x \in (A \cap B) \cup (A \cap C)$. Then $x \in (A \cap B) \vee x \in (A \cap C)$. In the case where $x \in (A \cap B)$ then $x \in A$ and $x \in B$. So $x \in B \cup C$ and $x \in A \cap (B \cup C)$. In the case where $x \in (A \cap C)$ then $x \in A$ and $x \in C$. Again $x \in B \cup C$ and $x \in A \cap (B \cup C)$. We are done.

Now we show $A \cup (B \cap C) = (A \cup B) \cap (A \cup C)$. Let x be arbitrary.

($\rightarrow$) Suppose $x \in A \cup (B \cap C)$. Then $x \in A$ or $x \in B \cap C$. In the case where $x \in A$ we have both $x \in A \cup B$ and $x \in A \cup C$, so $x \in (A \cup B) \cap (A \cup C)$. In the case where $x \in B \cap C$, then $x \in B$ and $x \in C$. So $x \in (A \cup B)$ and $x \in (A \cup C)$ and $x \in (A \cup B) \cap (A \cup C)$.

($\leftarrow$) Suppose $x \in (A \cup B) \cap (A \cup C)$. We have $x \in (A \cup B)$ and $x \in (A \cup C)$. We have two cases. Suppose first that $x \in A$; then $x \in A \cup (B \cap C)$. Now suppose $x \notin A$. Then since $x \in (A \cup B)$ and $x \in (A \cup C)$ we must have $x \in B$ and $x \in C$. So $x \in B \cap C$ and $x \in A \cup (B \cap C)$. $\square$

De Morgan's laws

$$\begin{aligned} C - (A \cup B) &= (C - A) \cap (C - B) \\ C - (A \cap B) &= (C - A) \cup (C - B) \end{aligned}$$

Proof. First we show $C - (A \cup B) = (C - A) \cap (C - B)$. Let x be arbitrary.

($\rightarrow$) Suppose $x \in C - (A \cup B)$. Then $x \in C$ and $x \notin A \cup B$, meaning $\neg(x \in A \cup B)$, $\neg(x \in A \vee x \in B)$, and $x \notin A \wedge x \notin B$. So since $x \in C$, we have $x \in C - A$ and $x \in C - B$, and therefore $x \in (C - A) \cap (C - B)$.

($\leftarrow$) Suppose $x \in (C - A) \cap (C - B)$. Then $x \in C$, $x \notin A$, and $x \notin B$. We therefore have $\neg(x \in A \vee x \in B)$ and $x \notin A \cup B$. So $x \in C - (A \cup B)$. We are done.

Now we show $C - (A \cap B) = (C - A) \cup (C - B)$. Let x be arbitrary.

($\rightarrow$) Suppose $x \in C - (A \cap B)$. Then $x \in C$ and $\neg(x \in A \wedge x \in B)$. So $x \notin A$ or $x \notin B$. In the case where $x \notin A$, $x \in C - A$. In the case where $x \notin B$, $x \in C - B$. We therefore have $x \in C - A$ or $x \in C - B$, and $x \in (C - A) \cup (C - B)$.

($\leftarrow$) Suppose $x \in (C - A) \cup (C - B)$. We have two cases. First suppose $x \in C - A$, then $x \in C$ and $x \notin A$. The latter implies $\neg(x \in A \wedge x \in B)$ and $x \notin A \cap B$, so $x \in C - (A \cap B)$. Now suppose $x \in C - B$. In a similar manner this implies $x \in C$ and $x \notin A \cap B$, and therefore $x \in C - (A \cap B)$. $\square$

(next page)

One generally considers sets as subsets of some larger set or “space” S . Assume then that A and B are subsets of S . We can then abbreviate $S - A$ as simply $-A$, the set S being understood as fixed. In this abbreviation De Morgan’s laws become

$$\begin{aligned} -(A \cup B) &= -A \cap -B \\ -(A \cap B) &= -A \cup -B \end{aligned}$$

Identities involving $\emptyset$

$$\begin{aligned} A \cup \emptyset &= A \\ A \cap \emptyset &= \emptyset \\ A \cap (C - A) &= \emptyset \end{aligned}$$

Proof. We show $A \cup \emptyset = A$. Let x be arbitrary. First suppose that $x \in A \cup \emptyset$. This implies that $x \notin \emptyset \rightarrow x \in A$. Therefore $x \in A$. The other direction is clearly true.

Both of the other two statements can be proved by extensionality, where both directions in each statement are vacuously true. $\square$

Inclusion

Under the assumption that $A \subseteq S$ (and that $S - A$ can be abbreviated as $-A$), we have

$$\begin{aligned} A \cup S &= S \\ A \cap S &= A \\ A \cup -A &= S \\ A \cap -A &= \emptyset \end{aligned}$$

Proof. First we show $A \cup S = S$. Let x be arbitrary. Suppose that $x \in A \cup S$; then $x \in A$ or $x \in S$. In the case where $x \in A$, since $A \subseteq S$ then $x \in S$. The case where $x \in S$ is self-evident. Now suppose that $x \in S$, then clearly $x \in A \cup S$. We are done.

Next we show $A \cap S = A$. Let x be arbitrary. Suppose $x \in A \cap S$. This clearly implies $x \in A$. Now suppose that $x \in A$. Since $A \subseteq S$ we also have $x \in S$ and therefore $x \in A \cap S$.

To show $A \cup -A = S$, let x be arbitrary and suppose $x \in A \cup -A$. This means $x \in A \vee (x \in S \wedge x \notin A)$. In the case where $x \in A$ we know that $A \subseteq S$ so $x \in S$. The other case where $x \in S \wedge x \notin A$ is self-evident. Now suppose $x \in S$; we have two cases. In the first case suppose $x \in A$. Then clearly $x \in A \cup -A$. In the other case $x \notin A$. Then $x \in S - A$ and $x \in A \cup -A$.

The last statement follows from a previously proven identity. Namely that for any two sets A and C we have $A \cap (C - A) = \emptyset$. $\square$

(next page)

Inclusion: Monotonicity properties

$$A \subseteq B \rightarrow A \cup C \subseteq B \cup C$$

$$A \subseteq B \rightarrow A \cap C \subseteq B \cap C$$

$$A \subseteq B \rightarrow \bigcup A \subseteq \bigcup B$$

Proof. For the first property, suppose $A \subseteq B$. Let x be an arbitrary element of $A \cup C$. Then $x \in A$ or $x \in C$. In the case where $x \in A$, since $A \subseteq B$ we also have $x \in B$ and $x \in B \cup C$. In the case where $x \in C$ we have $x \in B \cup C$.

For the second property, again suppose $A \subseteq B$. Let x be an arbitrary element of $A \cap C$. Then $x \in A$ and $x \in C$. Since $A \subseteq B$, $x \in B$; so $x \in B \cap C$.

For the last property, suppose $A \subseteq B$ and let x be an arbitrary element of $\bigcup A$. Then there is some $a \in A$ such that $x \in a$. Since $A \subseteq B$, $x \in a \in B$; so $x \in \bigcup B$. $\square$

Antimonotone properties

$$A \subseteq B \rightarrow C - B \subseteq C - A$$

$$\emptyset \neq A \subseteq B \rightarrow \bigcap B \subseteq \bigcap A$$

Proof. For the first property, suppose $A \subseteq B$ and let x be an arbitrary element of $C - B$. This means $x \in C$ and $x \notin B$. The contrapositive of the fact that $A \subseteq B$ shows that $x \notin A$. So $x \in C - A$.

For the second property, suppose A is nonempty and $A \subseteq B$ (which also means that B is nonempty). Let x be an arbitrary element of $\bigcap B$. Let a be some element of A . Since $A \subseteq B$, $a \in B$. Since $x \in \bigcap B$ we then have $x \in a$. $\square$

(next page)

Distributive laws

$$\begin{aligned} A \cup \bigcap B &= \bigcap \{A \cup X \mid X \in B\} \quad \text{for } B \neq \emptyset \\ A \cap \bigcup B &= \bigcup \{A \cap X \mid X \in B\} \end{aligned}$$

The set $\{A \cup X \mid X \in B\}$ is an extension of the abstraction notation; read “the set of all $A \cup X$ such that $X \in B$ ”. It defines the unique set D such that

$$\forall x(x \in D \leftrightarrow \exists X \in B(x = A \cup X))$$

The existence of such a set D can be proved by observing that $A \cup X \subseteq A \cup \bigcup B$, which means that D is a subset of $\mathcal{P}(A \cup \bigcup B)$. A similar approach can be used to assert the existence of $\{A \cap X \mid X \in B\}$.

Proof. (First statement) First we prove the existence of $\{A \cup X \mid X \in B\}$. We do this by showing that for arbitrary x , A , and B ,

$$\exists X \in B(x = A \cup X) \rightarrow x \in \mathcal{P}(A \cup \bigcup B)$$

Suppose there exists some $X \in B$ such that $x = A \cup X$. Let y be some arbitrary element of x . Then $y \in A \cup X$. In the case where $y \in A$ we clearly have $y \in A \cup \bigcup B$. In the case where $y \in X$, since $X \in B$ we then have $y \in \bigcup B$ and $y \in A \cup \bigcup B$. This shows that $x \subseteq A \cup \bigcup B$ and $x \in \mathcal{P}(A \cup \bigcup B)$. As such we have

$$\forall A \forall B \forall x [\exists X \in B(x = A \cup X) \leftrightarrow x \in \mathcal{P}(A \cup \bigcup B) \wedge \exists X \in B(x = A \cup X)]$$

The statement

$$\forall A \forall B \exists C (\forall x(x \in C \leftrightarrow x \in \mathcal{P}(A \cup \bigcup B) \wedge \exists X \in B(x = A \cup X)))$$

Is true by the subset axiom. These two statements can be used to show

$$\forall A \forall B \exists C (\forall x(x \in C \leftrightarrow \exists X \in B(x = A \cup X)))$$

Proving the existence of $\{A \cup X \mid X \in B\}$ for arbitrary A and B , where uniqueness follows from extensionality.
(next page)

Now we prove the first property.

$$A \cup \bigcap B = \bigcap \{A \cup X \mid X \in B\} \quad \text{for } B \neq \emptyset$$

Let x be arbitrary.

($\rightarrow$) Suppose $x \in A \cup \bigcap B$. This means that either $x \in A$ or $x \in \bigcap B$. Let a be some arbitrary element of $\{A \cup X \mid X \in B\}$; this means that there exists some $X \in B$ such that $a = A \cup X$. In the case where $x \in A$, we clearly have $x \in A \cup X = a$. In the case where $x \in \bigcap B$, since $X \in B$ we must have $x \in X$. Therefore $x \in A \cup X = a$.

($\leftarrow$) Now suppose that $x \in \bigcap \{A \cup X \mid X \in B\}$. This means $\forall a \in \{A \cup X \mid X \in B\}(x \in a)$. We have 2 cases. First suppose $x \in A$; then $x \in A \cup \bigcap B$. Now suppose $x \notin A$; we will show that $x \in \bigcap B$. Let $b \in B$; then we know $A \cup b \in \{A \cup X \mid X \in B\}$. So $x \in A \cup b$. Since $x \notin A$ this must mean that $x \in b$. So $x \in \bigcap B$ and $x \in A \cup \bigcap B$. $\square$

Proof. (Second statement) First we prove the existence of $\{A \cap X \mid x \in B\}$, defined as the unique set C where for arbitrary A and B ,

$$\forall x(x \in C \leftrightarrow \exists X \in B(x = A \cap X))$$

We first show

$$\forall A \forall B \forall x(\exists X \in B(x = A \cap X) \rightarrow x \in \mathcal{P}(A \cap \bigcup B))$$

Let A , B , and x be arbitrary. Suppose there exists $X \in B$ such that $x = A \cap X$. Let y be some arbitrary element of x . Then $y \in A$ and $y \in X \in B$, meaning $y \in \bigcup B$. So $y \in A \cap \bigcup B$ and $x \in \mathcal{P}(A \cap \bigcup B)$.

We now know

$$\forall A \forall B \forall x(\exists X \in B(x = A \cap X) \leftrightarrow x \in \mathcal{P}(A \cap \bigcup B) \wedge \exists X \in B(x = A \cap X))$$

By the subset axiom we can assert

$$\forall A \forall B \exists C(\forall x(x \in C \leftrightarrow x \in \mathcal{P}(A \cap \bigcup B) \wedge \exists X \in B(x = A \cap X)))$$

Using these two facts we can prove

$$\forall A \forall B \exists C(\forall x(x \in C \leftrightarrow x \in \exists X \in B(x = A \cap X)))$$

Proving the existence of $\{A \cap X \mid X \in B\}$ for arbitrary A and B , where uniqueness follows from extensionality.

(next page)

Now we prove the second property.

$$A \cap \bigcup B = \bigcup \{A \cap X \mid X \in B\}$$

Let x be arbitrary.

($\rightarrow$) Suppose $x \in A \cap \bigcup B$. Then $x \in A$ and $x \in \bigcup B$, meaning we can declare some $b \in B$ such that $x \in b$. We know $x \in A \cap b$. Since $A \cap b \in \{A \cap X \mid X \in B\}$, we then have $x \in \bigcup \{A \cap X \mid X \in B\}$.

($\leftarrow$) Suppose now that $x \in \bigcup \{A \cap X \mid X \in B\}$ then we can declare some $a \in \{A \cap X \mid X \in B\}$ such that $x \in a$. This means that we can declare some $X \in B$ such that $a = A \cap X$. So $x \in A$ and $x \in X \in B$, which means $x \in \bigcup B$. So $x \in A \cap \bigcup B$. $\square$

De Morgan's laws (for $A \neq \emptyset$)

$$\begin{aligned} C - \bigcup A &= \bigcap \{C - X \mid X \in A\} \\ C - \bigcap A &= \bigcup \{C - X \mid X \in A\} \end{aligned}$$

Existence of $\{C - X \mid X \in A\}$ can be proven by noticing that $X \in A$ implies $\bigcap A \subseteq X$, which implies $C - X \subseteq C - \bigcap A$.

Proof. We first prove existence of $\{C - X \mid X \in A\}$. That is, we prove

$$\forall A \forall C (\exists D \forall x (x \in D \leftrightarrow \exists X \in A (x = C - X)))$$

We start by showing that for nonempty A ,

$$\forall A \forall C \forall x (\exists X \in A (x = C - X) \rightarrow x \in \mathcal{P}(C - \bigcap A))$$

Letting A, C , and x be arbitrary, suppose there exists some $X \in A$ such that $x = C - X$. Let y be some arbitrary element of x . Then $y \in C$ and $y \notin X$. For contradiction suppose $y \in \bigcap A$; since $X \in A$ this would mean $y \in X$, which is a contradiction. So $y \in C - \bigcap A$, $x \subseteq C - \bigcap A$, and $x \in \mathcal{P}(C - \bigcap A)$. We are done.

By the subset axiom we can assert

$$\forall A \forall C \exists D \forall x (x \in D \leftrightarrow x \in \mathcal{P}(C - \bigcap A) \wedge \exists X \in A (x = C - X))$$

Using these two facts we can prove

$$\forall A \forall C (\exists D \forall x (x \in D \leftrightarrow \exists X \in A (x = C - X)))$$

Which proves the existence of $\{C - X \mid X \in A\}$ for arbitrary A and C . Uniqueness follows from extensionality.

(next page)

Now we prove the first property—that for nonempty A ,

$$C - \bigcup A = \bigcap \{C - X \mid X \in A\}$$

Let x be arbitrary.

($\rightarrow$) Suppose $x \in C - \bigcup A$. Then $x \in C$ and $x \notin \bigcup A$. Suppose arbitrary $a \in \{C - X \mid X \in A\}$. Then there exists some $X \in A$ such that $a = C - X$. Suppose for contradiction that $x \in X$; since $X \in A$ this would mean $x \in \bigcup A$, which is a contradiction. Therefore $x \in C - X = a$. Since a was arbitrary we therefore have $x \in \bigcap \{C - X \mid X \in A\}$.

($\leftarrow$) Now suppose $x \in \bigcap \{C - X \mid X \in A\}$. Since A is nonempty we can declare some $X \in A$. Then $C - X \in \{C - X \mid X \in A\}$, and $x \in C - X$. So we have $x \in C$. Now suppose for contradiction that $x \in \bigcup A$. Then we can declare some $X_0 \in A$ such that $x \in X_0$. $C - X_0 \in \{C - X \mid X \in A\}$, so $x \in C - X_0$ and $x \notin X_0$, which is a contradiction. So we have $x \in C - \bigcup A$. This proves the first property.

Now for the second property. For any nonempty A ,

$$C - \bigcap A = \bigcup \{C - X \mid X \in A\}$$

Let x be arbitrary

($\rightarrow$) Suppose $x \in C - \bigcap A$. Then $x \in C$ and $x \notin \bigcap A$. The latter implies $\exists a \in A (x \notin a)$. So there is some $a \in A$ such that $x \notin a$. We know $x \in C - a \in \{C - X \mid X \in A\}$; so $x \in \bigcup \{C - X \mid X \in A\}$.

($\leftarrow$) Suppose $x \in \bigcup \{C - X \mid X \in A\}$. Then there exists some $a \in \{C - X \mid X \in A\}$ such that $x \in a$. There then exists some $X \in A$ such that $a = C - X$. So $x \in C$ and $x \notin X$. For contradiction, suppose $x \in \bigcap A$. Since $X \in A$ this would imply that $x \in X$, which is a contradiction. So $x \in C - \bigcap A$. We are done. $\square$

Chapter 2

Relations and Functions

2.1 Ordered Pairs

The pair set $\{a, b\}$ can be thought of as an unordered pair, since $\{a, b\} = \{b, a\}$. We want to define a set $\langle x, y \rangle$ that uniquely encodes both what x, y are, and what order they are in. That is,

$$\forall x \forall y \forall u \forall v (\langle x, y \rangle = \langle u, v \rangle \leftrightarrow (x = u \wedge y = v))$$

Any definition of $\langle x, y \rangle$ that satisfies the above will suffice. For an example of definitions that *fail this requirement*, if we define $\langle x, y \rangle_1 = \{x, y\}$, then for $x \neq y$, $\langle x, y \rangle_1 = \{x, y\} = \{y, x\} = \langle y, x \rangle_1$ even though $x \neq y$.

The most conventional construction was given by Kazimierz Kuratowski in 1921:

Definition 2.1. $\langle x, y \rangle$ is defined to be $\{\{x\}, \{x, y\}\}$.

We must prove that this definition succeeds in capturing the desired property.

Theorem 2.2. For arbitrary u, v, x, y , $\langle u, v \rangle = \langle x, y \rangle$ iff $u = x$ and $v = y$.

Proof. The left direction is trivial. If $u = x$ and $v = y$, then $\{\{x\}, \{x, y\}\}$ is identical to $\{\{u\}, \{u, v\}\}$.

For the right direction, suppose $\langle u, v \rangle = \langle x, y \rangle$. We have two cases. First suppose $x = y$. Then $\langle x, y \rangle = \{\{x\}, \{x, y\}\} = \{\{x\}, \{x, x\}\} = \{\{x\}, \{x\}\} = \{\{x\}\}$ and then $\{\{x\}\} = \{\{u\}, \{u, v\}\}$. This means that $\{x\} = \{u, v\}$ and $y = x = u = v$. So clearly $u = x$ and $v = y$. For the other case suppose $x \neq y$. We know $\{\{x\}, \{x, y\}\} = \{\{u\}, \{u, v\}\}$. See that $\{u\} = \{x\} \vee \{u\} = \{x, y\}$; the latter cannot be the case, so we must have $\{u\} = \{x\}$ and $u = x$. We know that $\{x, y\} \neq \{u\}$ since $x \neq y$, so we must have $\{x, y\} = \{u, v\} = \{x, v\}$. This leaves us with $y = x \vee y = v$, so we can conclude that $y = v$. $\square$

This allows us to unambiguously define the *first coordinate* of $\langle x, y \rangle$ to be x and the *second coordinate* to be y .

2.1.1 Cartesian product

Suppose that we have two sets A and B , and we form ordered pairs $\langle x, y \rangle$ with $x \in A$ and $y \in B$. The collection of all such pairs is called the *Cartesian product* $A \times B$ of A and B :

$$A \times B = \{\langle x, y \rangle \mid x \in A \wedge y \in B\}$$

We must verify that this collection is actually a set before the definition is legal.

Lemma 2.3. *For arbitrary x, y, C , if $x \in C$ and $y \in C$, then $\langle x, y \rangle \in \mathcal{P}\mathcal{P}C$.*

Proof. Suppose $x \in C$ and $y \in C$. Then $\{x\} \subseteq C$ and $\{x, y\} \subseteq C$. So $\{x\} \in \mathcal{P}C$ and $\{x, y\} \in \mathcal{P}C$. So $\{\{x\}, \{x, y\}\} \subseteq \mathcal{P}C$ and $\{\{x\}, \{x, y\}\} \in \mathcal{P}\mathcal{P}C$. $\square$

Now to show existence of $A \times B = \{\langle x, y \rangle \mid x \in A \wedge y \in B\}$.

Proof. We first show

$$\forall A \forall B \forall t (\exists x \in A \exists y \in B (t = \langle x, y \rangle) \rightarrow t \in \mathcal{P}\mathcal{P}(A \cup B))$$

Letting A, B , and t be arbitrary, suppose we can declare $x \in A$ and $y \in B$ such that $t = \langle x, y \rangle$. We have $x \in A \cup B$ and $y \in A \cup B$; by the previous lemma we then have $t = \langle x, y \rangle \in \mathcal{P}\mathcal{P}(A \cup B)$.

By the subset axiom we can assert

$$\forall A \forall B \exists D \forall t (t \in D \leftrightarrow t \in \mathcal{P}\mathcal{P}(A \cup B) \wedge \exists x \in A \exists y \in B (t = \langle x, y \rangle))$$

Using these two facts we can show

$$\forall A \forall B \exists D \forall t (t \in D \leftrightarrow \exists x \in A \exists y \in B (t = \langle x, y \rangle))$$

Proving the existence of $\{\langle x, y \rangle \mid x \in A \wedge y \in B\}$ for arbitrary A and B . Uniqueness follows from extensionality. $\square$

2.2 Relations

Definition 2.4. A **relation** is a set of ordered pairs.

Any set of ordered pairs is some relation, even if a peculiar one. For a relation R , we sometimes write xRy in place of $\langle x, y \rangle \in R$.

Definition 2.5. We define the **domain** of R ($\text{dom } R$), the **range** of R ($\text{ran } R$), and the **field** of R ($\text{fld } R$) by

$$\begin{aligned} x \in \text{dom } R &\leftrightarrow \exists y(\langle x, y \rangle \in R) \\ x \in \text{ran } R &\leftrightarrow \exists t(\langle t, x \rangle \in R) \\ \text{fld } R &= \text{dom } R \cup \text{ran } R \end{aligned}$$

Again we must justify the existence of the domain and the range.

Lemma 2.6. For arbitrary A, x, y , if $\langle x, y \rangle \in A$, then x and y belong to $\bigcup \bigcup A$.

Proof. We assume $\{\{x\}, \{x, y\}\} \in A$. Consequently, $\{x, y\} \in \bigcup A$ since it belongs to a member of A . In a similar manner we can conclude that $x \in \bigcup \bigcup A$ and $y \in \bigcup \bigcup A$. $\square$

Now to prove existence.

Proof. Starting with the domain, we want to show

$$\forall R \exists D \forall x (x \in D \leftrightarrow \exists y (\langle x, y \rangle \in R))$$

We start by proving

$$\forall R \forall x (\exists y (\langle x, y \rangle \in R) \rightarrow x \in \bigcup \bigcup R)$$

Letting R and x be arbitrary, and supposing that there exists y such that $\langle x, y \rangle \in R$, by the previous lemma we have $x \in \bigcup \bigcup R$.

The subset axioms allow us to assert

$$\forall R \exists D \forall x (x \in D \leftrightarrow x \in \bigcup \bigcup R \leftrightarrow \exists y (\langle x, y \rangle \in R))$$

Existence follows from these two facts. Uniqueness follows from extensionality.

Now for the range. We want to show

$$\forall R \exists D \forall x (x \in D \leftrightarrow \exists t (\langle t, x \rangle \in R))$$

Again using the previous lemma we can easily prove

$$\forall R \forall x (\exists t (\langle t, x \rangle \in R) \rightarrow x \in \bigcup \bigcup R)$$

and then using the subset axiom to assert

$$\forall R \exists D \forall x (x \in D \leftrightarrow x \in \bigcup \bigcup R \wedge \exists t (\langle t, x \rangle \in R))$$

the desired result follows. Uniqueness follows from extensionality. $\square$

2.2.1 n -ary Relations

We can extend the ideas behind ordered pairs to the case of ordered triples and, more generally, to ordered n -tuples. For triples we define

$$\langle x, y, z \rangle = \langle \langle x, y \rangle, z \rangle$$

Similarly we can form ordered quadruples:

$$\langle x_1, x_2, x_3, x_4 \rangle = \langle \langle x_1, x_2, x_3 \rangle, x_4 \rangle = \langle \langle \langle x_1, x_2 \rangle, x_3 \rangle, x_4 \rangle$$

We define an n -ary relation on A to be a set of ordered n -tuples with all components in A . Thus a binary (2-ary) relation on A is just a subset of $A \times A$. A ternary (3-ary) relation on A is a subset of $(A \times A) \times A$.

2.3 Functions

Definition 2.7. A **function** is a relation F such that for each x in $\text{dom } F$ there is only one y such that xFy .

$$\forall x \in \text{dom } F \exists! y (xFy)$$

For a function F and a x in $\text{dom } F$, the unique y such that xFy is called the **value of F at x** and is denoted $F(x)$. Thus $\langle x, F(x) \rangle \in F$.

To avoid confusion, this “ $F(x)$ ” notation should only be used when F is a function and $x \in \text{dom } F$.

Definition 2.8. For sets A and B , we say that F is a function from A to B or that F maps A into B

$$F : A \rightarrow B$$

iff F is a function, $\text{dom } F = A$, and $\text{ran } F \subseteq B$.

Note the unequal treatment of A and B here—we demand only that $\text{ran } F \subseteq B$.

Definition 2.9. F is a function from A **onto** B if F is a function from A to B , and $\text{ran } F = B$.

Thus any function F maps its domain onto its range. The word “onto” depends both on F and on the set B .

Definition 2.10. A function F is **one-to-one** iff for each $y \in \text{ran } F$ there is only one x such that xFy .

$$\forall y \in \text{ran } F \exists! x (xFy)$$

One-to-one functions are sometimes called **injections**.

(next page)

I use this page to prove a few equivalences of alternative definitions.

Theorem 2.11. *For a function F ,*

$$\forall y \in \text{ran } F \exists! x (xFy) \leftrightarrow \forall x_1 \in \text{dom } F \forall x_2 \in \text{dom } F (F(x_1) = F(x_2) \rightarrow x_1 = x_2)$$

Proof. ($\rightarrow$) Suppose $\forall y \in \text{ran } F \exists! x (xFy)$. This can be rewritten as

$$\forall y \in \text{ran } F (\exists x (xFy) \wedge \forall x_1 \forall x_2 (x_1 Fy \wedge x_2 Fy \rightarrow x_1 = x_2))$$

Suppose x_1 and x_2 are elements of $\text{dom } F$ such that $F(x_1) = F(x_2)$ (we know that $F(x_1)$ and $F(x_2)$ exist and are unique since F is a function and x_1 and x_2 are in the domain of F .) We know $\langle x_1, F(x_1) \rangle \in F$ and $\langle x_2, F(x_2) \rangle \in F$ so both $F(x_1)$ and $F(x_2)$ are in the range of F . We will denote $F(x_1) = F(x_2) = y$. We then have $x_1 Fy$ and $x_2 Fy$ for $y \in \text{ran } F$. Using our initial assumption we can conclude that $x_1 = x_2$.

($\leftarrow$) Suppose now that the right side is true. We want to show

$$\forall y \in \text{ran } F (\exists x (xFy) \wedge \forall x_1 \forall x_2 (x_1 Fy \wedge x_2 Fy \rightarrow x_1 = x_2))$$

Let y be an arbitrary element of $\text{ran } F$. $\exists x (xFy)$ follows by definition. Let x_1 and x_2 be arbitrary such that $x_1 Fy$ and $x_2 Fy$. Then x_1 and x_2 are in the domain of F . Since F is a function, $y = F(x_1) = F(x_2)$ it follows from our initial assumption that $x_1 = x_2$. $\square$

Theorem 2.12. *Supposing F is a function from A to B ,*

$$\text{ran } F = B \leftrightarrow \forall y \in B \exists x \in A (xFy)$$

Proof. ($\rightarrow$) Suppose $\text{ran } F = B$. Let y be an arbitrary element of B . Then by our assumption, $y \in \text{ran } F$. By definition, there exists some x such that xFy . x is in the domain of F , so since $F : A \rightarrow B$, $x \in A$.

($\leftarrow$) Suppose now that $\forall y \in B \exists x \in A (xFy)$. Let y be arbitrary. First suppose $y \in \text{ran } F$. Then since $F : A \rightarrow B$, $\text{ran } F \subseteq B$ and $y \in B$. Now suppose $y \in B$. Then by the initial assumption there exists some $x \in A$ such that xFy . This implies that $y \in \text{ran } F$. $\square$

2.3.1 More definitions